The Memoirs of

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81: United Nations Join for War

AFTER WAR CAME, the armed forces of the nation, under the direction of the President as Commander-in-Chief, moved to the forefront—but the diplomatic establishment became a significant factor in the conflict. Relations with the enemy countries ceased, but vastly augmented duties fell to our lot in relations with Allied and neutral nations.

During peacetime the State Department had been responsible, under the President, for the conduct of our international relations and also for making recommendations regarding movements of our military forces abroad, as, for instance, whether our troops in China should be increased or decreased. When war came the Department was no longer connected with military operations abroad, which became subject only to the command of the appropriate military authorities.

Almost immediately after Pearl Harbor I said to my associates that the role of the State Department from now on was to contribute to the war effort, and I wanted everyone in the Department to cooperate to the full with the War and Navy Departments and all war agencies, and to place at their disposal all our facilities.

I made it a practice not to let officials of the Department come to me with the statement that an official of the War or Navy Departments was doing something wrong. I said to them, in effect: "Remember, they are the fellows who are taking responsibility for the strategy and conduct of the war. They have a right to our fullest cooperation."

Prior to Pearl Harbor I had been a member of the War Council, composed of the President, the Secretaries of State, War, and the Navy, the Chief of Staff, and the Chief of Naval Operations, and I took part in its meetings. After Pearl Harbor I did not sit in on meetings concerned with military matters. This was because the President did not invite me to such meetings. I raised the question with him several times. It seemed manifest to me that, in numerous important instances, the Secretary of State should sit in on the President's war councils, particularly on those of a combined military and diplomatic nature, for it was obvious that scarcely any large-scale military operations could be undertaken that would not have diplomatic aspects.

I feel it is a serious mistake for a Secretary of State not to be present

at important military meetings. I often had occasion to point out to the President that some development of a military character, which undoubtedly had been decided at one of these meetings, also had a strong foreign affairs angle of which I should have been informed at the time.

The President did not take me with him to the Casablanca, Cairo, or Tehran conferences, which were predominantly military meetings, nor did I take part in his military discussions with Prime Minister Churchill in Washington, some of which had widespread diplomatic repercussions. I said to him: "I'm not looking for increased responsibilities, but I do believe the Secretary of State should attend these meetings." I referred to the British practice whereunder Foreign Secretary Anthony Eden participated in all war councils.

The President's reply was that we had a different system here—which, I agreed, was true—in the sense that the British Cabinet constituted the Government, and Eden had stronger claims under their system than I would have under ours to participate in war councils, even though the diplomatic phases were vital factors for consideration.

I learned from other sources than the President what had occurred at the Casablanca, Cairo, and Tehran conferences. I had no special occasion to interrogate Mr. Roosevelt on developments at these conferences, but, if I asked him questions relating to his discussions, he was prompt, with few exceptions, to inform me frankly on the most secret matters.

One question of a military nature I did discuss with the President and his military assistants was the location of the second front. I agreed that our major effort should be made across the English Channel into France. The question of where the armies would land and what routes they would take across the Continent in the grand military movement to conquer Hitler was a subject never discussed with me by the President or any of his top military officials, although I was early informed of the decision reached.

I was not told about the atomic bomb. Occasionally someone gave me a veiled hint, but I did not press any questions. I did not really know about it until it was dropped and the announcement made. During the last months of its preparation, however, and when it was dropped, I was no longer Secretary of State, and consequently not likely to have any knowledge of it. Mr. Roosevelt deserves great credit for making the tremendous decision to go the length of spending $2,000,000,000 in developing the atomic bomb.

The President continued not to invite me to his military meetings.

He loved the military side of events, and liked to hold them in his own hand. Following Pearl Harbor, he preferred to be called Commander-in-Chief rather than President. He relished the title. He may have felt that this all-important position was now more essential than that of President.

At a Cabinet dinner, probably in 1942, where I was to propose the toast, the President asked me, before I rose to speak:

"Please try to address me as Commander-in-Chief, not as President."

It was impossible, of course, not to take up some military subjects in my conversations with ambassadors, particularly the representatives of our principal Allies. On December 8, 1941, during my first conversation with the new Soviet Ambassador, former Foreign Commissar Maxim Litvinov, with whom I had conducted the initial negotiations that resulted in the establishment of Soviet-American diplomatic relations in 1933, I raised the question of Russia's permitting us the use of air bases on Russian territory to facilitate the bombing of Japanese areas. We likewise discussed the question of getting supplies to Vladivostok in Russian ships, since Japan would obviously not permit American ships to carry them to Russia.

Three days later, when Litvinov called at my request, he said his Government had communicated to him that it was not then in position to cooperate with us against Japan. Russia, he said, was fighting on a huge scale against Germany and could not risk an attack by Japan.

I replied that I could appreciate Russia's position. Recalling to him the warnings we had given Russia earlier in the year of an impending German attack against her, I said I now had information that I deemed equally reliable, to the effect that Japan, notwithstanding the terms of the Russo-Japanese neutrality agreement, was under the strictest commitment to Germany to attack Russia and any other country fighting against Germany whenever Hitler demanded. This arrangement, I added, had contemplated that Japan would first attack the United States, in which assault Germany and Italy would join, and that later, when Germany demanded, Japan would invade Russia.

Although Stalin had thus early made up his mind not to join us against Japan at that time, I wanted to keep the question before him for some time in the future. I pointed out to Litvinov that we were fighting a world movement of international desperadoes who would not cease their movements of conquest voluntarily—somebody had to stop them.

"They will not be stopped," I said, "by our merely slowing down one phase of their world movement. If we are to deal effectively with this

movement, we must consider it as a whole, and our movement of resistance must be carried on in each part of the world at the same time." Litvinov did not disagree.

I said that if our Government could get two air bases, one on the Kamchatka Peninsula and one around Vladivostok, our heavy bombers could get over Japanese home naval bases and the home fleet as well as over their cities.

Litvinov suggested that bombing cities was not necessarily decisive in view of experiences in Moscow, London, and elsewhere.

I reemphasized the world nature of the Axis movement of conquest and the extreme danger of more and more cooperation between Japan and Germany. "We must envisage the possibility," I said, "that the Japanese fleet might cut across the Indian Ocean to the Persian Gulf oil fields, to the mouth of the Suez Canal, and to the Cape of Good Hope. Then if Germany should be successful in her contemplated African invasion, Japan on the sea would meet her on the African coast. The effect of this on the whole British European situation would be terrific. Hitler and Japan would have a new lease on life, the effects of which would be terrible on all of us, including Russia."

Litvinov agreed as to these possibilities.

"If Russia," I remarked, "should refrain from cooperation with us in the Far East while we continued to aid her in Europe, there would be a constant flow of criticism as to why we were aiding Russia against a world movement involving all alike when Russia was not cooperating with us in the Orient." I reminded him that I had had to issue a statement that same day to allay some of this very kind of rising criticism, and that it would become an increasingly serious matter for both Governments.

Chiang Kai-shek had already, on December 9, informed us that he had cabled his brother-in-law, T. V. Soong, in Washington, and Ambassador Hu Shih, to see the President and the Soviet Ambassador and urge a simultaneous Soviet-Chinese declaration of war on Japan. The Generalissimo cited a Soviet view that, if Russia fought Japan, the United States might not concentrate her main effort in the Pacific, and Russia would be left to bear the major burden. He therefore suggested that, if the United States gave priority to the Pacific over the Atlantic until Japan was conquered, this undoubtedly would bring Russia in.

Russia persisted in her view, to which we could not but give sympathetic understanding, that she was too heavily engaged with Germany to

court the chance of a Japanese attack in the Far East. It was not until the Moscow Conference of October, 1943, that I was able, during a personal talk with Stalin, to obtain assurances that Russia would make war on Japan.

I went over with the President and Secretary Stimson on December 12 the entire problem of unifying and coordinating the forces of all opposition to Japan in the Far East, with special reference to the South Seas area. I took this question up with British Ambassador Halifax the same day and with Chinese Ambassador Dr. Hu Shih the following day. I said to all of them that, in my opinion, the situation in the whole South Seas area was dangerous and called for emergency treatment to the fullest possible extent by all the countries concerned. I urged the importance of conference and collaboration on joint action at the earliest possible date. I suggested to Halifax that he begin conferences with the Canadian and Australian representatives.

The labors of the State Department changed or intensified in many ways following the outbreak of war. We had been representing in the Axis capitals the interests of the British, French, Canadians, South Africans, Norwegians, Dutch, Poles, Greeks, and Yugoslavs. Now we had to divest ourselves of this representation, and we also had to turn over the representation of our own interests to a neutral country. Switzerland agreed to undertake this vast work, and she carried it out with consummate skill.

We were likewise engaged in negotiations, which consumed many months, for the exchange of our diplomats and other civilians for Axis representatives and civilians. In the midst of a State Department conference on this subject a few days after Pearl Harbor, we received word from a highly reliable source that Japanese Ambassador Nomura and his Naval Attaché had received orders to commit hara-kiri in the Embassy, whereupon the Japanese Government would say that we had murdered them.

Our apprehension over what might happen to our officials in Japan if such a plan materialized was keen. We induced the Swiss Minister to go immediately to the Japanese Embassy, inform Nomura of the report we had received, and ascertain his intentions. They had a long conversation which did not entirely dissolve our fears because Nomura said the decision rested not with him but with higher authorities.

We were also faced with the problem of getting additional thousands of Americans out of Europe. Before and after the outbreak of war in

Europe on September 1, 1939, the State Department had given Americans living or traveling in Europe repeated warnings to come home if at all possible. Later we had given similar notice with regard to the Orient. Many hundreds had heeded the warning and had taken advantage of the special shipping and other arrangements we had made for their repatriation, but large groups of Americans were still in Europe and Asia at the time of Pearl Harbor.

My associates and I had been preparing a comprehensive summary of our relations with Japan, culminating in Pearl Harbor, which the President might wish to send to Congress. We completed this about December 10, and Mr. Roosevelt sent it as a message to Congress on December 15.

Further declarations of war against us were now reported from Bulgaria, Hungary, and Rumania. When I talked this fact over with the President on December 13, however, we agreed that, at least for the time being, we would not ask Congress for declarations of war against these satellites. We realized that their Governments were puppets of Hitler and had merely jumped when the strings were pulled.

I was then beginning to work, along with my associates at the State Department, on a far more important declaration—that which later was called the Declaration by United Nations. Almost immediately after Pearl Harbor I had begun to consider the form of unity the nations fighting against Hitler and Japan should take. By now, including the Latin American Republics that had accompanied us into war against the Axis, an imposing list of nearly thirty nations was arrayed against the Axis.

My first idea of the unity the Allied nations should take was based on the conferences at Lima and Havana, with regard to the Western Hemisphere. This was that, when danger developed, a united resistance must be organized. In my mind I extended that policy to the world situation for, from the Montevideo Conference on, I had often stated that our Pan American policies were capable of being applied to the world.

I asked my associates to go back over the period from 1938 on with regard to Latin America, to review what the President had said on the subject of unity among the nations fighting the Axis, and to scrutinize the procedures followed in the First World War, including the subject of unity of command and military alliances.

Then on Saturday December 13 I asked Maxwell M. Hamilton, Chief of the Division of Far Eastern Affairs, to draw up a draft of a declaration to be made by the nations fighting the Axis, which would

bind them together until victory and would commit them to the basic principles that we upheld. The following morning, Sunday, exactly one week after Pearl Harbor, I met with a group of my associates to discuss this declaration and another declaration setting up a Supreme War Council.

Hamilton had prepared two alternative drafts of a declaration by the Allies. These differed only in that one brought in all the Allies, whereas the other consisted of two separate declarations, the first to be signed by all the Allies with the exception of Russia, who was not at war with Japan, and the latter to be signed by Russia. We quickly decided to discard the second draft, believing it would be far more effective to have Russia included with the rest of the Allies. After further exchanges of views, I requested Assistant Secretary Berle, Economic Adviser Feis, and Hamilton to go to another room, incorporate in the draft the changes suggested, and bring it back to the meeting. This they did, and returned in half an hour.

We now agreed on the main points of what became the Declaration by United Nations. The preamble first reasserted the principles agreed to by President Roosevelt and Prime Minister Churchill in the Atlantic Charter. It then stated that the nations fighting the Axis were "convinced that complete and world-wide victory of all of them is essential to defend and preserve life, liberty and independence, and to preserve human freedom and justice not only in their own lands but everywhere, and that the struggle in which they are now engaged is a common defense against savage and brutal forces seeking to subjugate the world."

Then followed the specific points of agreement, three in number. Each Government pledged itself, first, "to employ its full resources against the Government or Governments which signed the Tripartite Pact on September 27, 1940, with which it is or may be at war, and to continue such employment until that Government or those Governments have been finally defeated."

Second, "to cooperate with the others to the entire extent of its capacity to effect full coordination of military effort and use of resources against the common enemies or any of them."

Third, "not to cease hostilities against or conclude a separate armistice with the common enemies or any of them, except by common agreement."

Here, I felt, we were taking two long and helpful steps forward in comparison with our position during the First World War. First, we

intended to try to bind all the nations fighting the Axis to the acceptance of certain principles already stated in the Atlantic Charter. These were the right of peoples to choose their own form of government; no aggrandizement; no territorial changes opposed by the peoples concerned; access to trade and raw materials; improved labor standards, economic advancement, and social security; international security; freedom of the seas; and disarmament.

Our Government, on entering the First World War, had not endeavored to bind the Allies to any war aims. Various secret accords had already been agreed to by the Allied Governments whereunder territorial changes would be made if they won the war. Wilson's Administration was subsequently criticized severely for not having tried to get the Allies into a common agreement on war aims. His problems at the peace conference were greatly complicated by the fact that no such agreement existed.

This time I felt that the Allies should all be committed in advance to certain principles, leaving details of boundary adjustments and the like to be settled later. If the principles were strongly enough proclaimed and adhered to, the details would find readier solution when the time came to solve them.

It was naturally necessary for us to know whether any secret agreements again existed among the Allies. When I had this question put to them they assured us that there were no such agreements.

Secondly, we were willing this time to join in a full alliance with the other nations fighting the Axis. During the First World War we had considered and called ourselves an "Associated Power," not an Ally. The Declaration we now prepared was in the nature of an alliance. It embraced the two main points of the usual military alliance; namely, a pledge of full support and cooperation in conducting the war against the common enemy, and a pledge not to cease hostilities against the common enemy except by mutual agreement.

From December 15 to December 19 my associates and I spent considerable time perfecting drafts of the document that became the United Nations Declaration. We also discussed another document that would have created a Supreme War Council composed of the heads or representatives of the Governments of the United Kingdom, the United States, China, and the U.S.S.R. The function of the War Council would be "to supervise and coordinate the general conduct of the war and to provide for its successful prosecution." The Council would determine theaters of war and provide for representation of any other Government actively engaged

in war against a common enemy in such theaters. It would be responsible for coordinating the distribution of available resources of all categories between various theaters of war. It would be charged with effecting unified command in any theater of war determined by it. The Council would create a staff of representatives of their respective armed forces to carry out their orders.

In drawing up this second document, we considered and discussed thoroughly the creation, functioning, and achievements of the Supreme War Council set up during the latter stages of the First World War. During my years in the House of Representatives, I had made a study of the relations of the United States with the Allies and of the operation of their joint councils. I had given particular attention to the book on this subject by General Tasker H. Bliss, the United States Army Chief of Staff. It was now my thought that the Supreme War Council should be set up at once and not wait until a long period of war had passed, as was the case in the previous conflict.

I sent both papers to the President at the White House at one o'clock on December 19, along with a memorandum outlining the activities of the Supreme War Council of 1917–1918. Although a proposal to create a Supreme War Council was not strictly a function of the State Department, I felt impelled to make the suggestion to the President because of my belief that a close working together of the Allies was imperatively necessary, and that our diplomatic efforts toward that end would be immeasurably bolstered by an intimate working relationship in the military field. My own studies of the relations of the Allied and Associated Powers during the First World War were still so fresh in my mind that I wanted to communicate the results of these studies to the Commander-in-Chief, in so far as they might be of aid to him.

In an accompanying memorandum to the President I said: "The four chief nations now fighting together, as well as any others who will join with them, should forthwith sign a common declaration of principle, which should embody a pledge to employ their entire resources and their full military effort to defeat the common enemy, and should include a pledge to coordinate these efforts, and should include also a pledge by all of them not to cease hostilities nor conclude a separate armistice with the common enemies or any of them until these enemies are finally defeated."

As to the Supreme War Council document, I said: "Second, it seems essential to provide machinery which will effectively coordinate the use of

resources and the military effort, making suitable allocation between theaters of war, keeping continuous check on the execution of war plans and, if possible, achieving unified command in theaters where this is feasible."

An hour later, at the Cabinet meeting presided over by the President, I went over both papers for the benefit of the Cabinet members. I pointed out the great advantages to all concerned in unifying all the nations fighting the Axis in a common determination to carry the fight through to victory by pledging all their resources in the common effort, and in an acceptance of the principles that should be applied when victory was attained.

I said that military alliances usually stipulated that the parties to them would not conclude peace except by mutual agreement, and that the Joint Declaration might be an improvement in that it provided that the signatories would not "cease hostilities against or conclude a separate armistice" except by common agreement.

As for the Supreme War Council, I said the one we had outlined would probably be far more effective than that of 1917–1918 because the United States would have political representation, whereas in the previous war our participation had been chiefly military. Furthermore, our plan called for representation on the Council's staff of army, naval, and air forces, whereas the plan of 1917 provided only for a permanent military representative.

One of the most important arguments in favor of our plan, I said, was that it would probably result in unified command in many theaters of the war. The creation of the Supreme War Council in 1917 had greatly assisted in bringing about a unified command on the Western Front. This unification was all the more necessary now, I concluded, inasmuch as the theaters of war were far more widely spread than they had been in the war of 1914–1918.

In the Cabinet discussion that followed, there seemed to be general approval of both documents. The President raised only one point about which he had any hesitancy. This concerned the constitutionality of the Joint Declaration, which later became known officially as the Declaration by United Nations. He brought up especially the question whether he had the constitutional right to sign an agreement that pledged the signatories not to conclude a separate armistice or cease hostilities.

When I returned to the State Department I called my advisers in for a discussion of this point. We generally felt that there was no real

doubt as to the constitutionality of the provisions. I suggested, however, that the provision might well be taken from the Joint Declaration, which would be signed by many countries, and placed in the Supreme War Council agreement, which would be signed by four countries. We therefore prepared new drafts, also embodying two other minor changes, and I sent these to the White House that evening to be substituted for the two documents I had placed before the Cabinet.

December 22 I sent the President an eight-page opinion by Green H. Hackworth, Legal Adviser of the State Department, to the effect that there was not the slightest question about the constitutionality of the President's undertaking not to cease hostilities against or conclude a separate armistice with the common enemies or any of them except by common agreement. I wrote the President that, in my judgment, Hackworth's opinion "makes clear the legal and constitutional validity of this provision."

This opinion stated: "Both by the resolutions of Congress and by the Constitution the President is to be the judge as to how best to prosecute the war. Its successful termination may depend upon the ability of the President to make certain that Great Britain, Soviet Russia, and China shall continue the struggle until the enemies are defeated. The best way to be sure that this situation shall obtain is through a pledge by them not to cease fighting except by common agreement of all four Powers. The President could not obtain such a pledge from the other Powers without making one himself. He is justified in doing so by reason of his responsibility as Commander-in-Chief and his broad powers in the conduct of foreign relations."

The President thereupon agreed that this clause could well be reinserted in the Declaration.

That day I gave the President a further memorandum on the Supreme War Council my associates and I proposed. This outlined the organizations that might function under the Council. They included a Military Council, a Naval Council, an Aviation Council, a Shipping Council, and an Economic Council. The last body would be divided into Food, Munitions, Raw Materials, and Petroleum committees. I recommended that the seat of the Supreme War Council be Washington.

And on the same day Prime Minister Churchill arrived in Washington. During the next few days the President went over with the Prime Minister our texts of the proposed Joint Declaration and of the proposal

for the Supreme War Council. Mr. Churchill or Ambassador Halifax communicated these to London for the War Cabinet's opinion.

The President sent me on December 27 his written comments on the two texts. Churchill had received recommendations from the War Cabinet on the Joint Declaration and the President said he had taken these into account.

"I think," he said, "every effort should be made to get religious freedom into that document. I believe Litvinov can be induced to agree to this."

He thought the language in the pledge to continue the fight against the Axis was difficult for the Russians. This was because they were not at war with Japan. He suggested a slight change in the wording so that the pledge would apply against the Axis forces of conquest with which the signatory was at war.

The President said he had been trying to think of a way to obviate the necessity of two different documents, the Joint Declaration and the Supreme War Council proposal.

He suggested that the list of countries mentioned in the opening paragraph of the Joint Declaration should embrace all the nations at war against the Axis, including the Latin American Republics. "It seems to me a distinct advantage," he said, "to have as long a list of small countries as possible in this Declaration."

The President believed that China and the U.S.S.R. should be lifted from the alphabetical listing and placed with the United States and Britain at the head of the list. "I have a feeling," he commented, "the U.S.S.R. would not be pleased to see their name following some of the countries which are realistically making a minor contribution."

He presumed it was up to the British to decide whether India should be included. "But," he said, "I don't understand why they don't include it. Perhaps you could prod them a little."

Further he suggested: "I feel that the Free French should not be included in this document."

In general he concluded: "I am anxious that the most careful thought be given to the language in this Declaration, which will supplement the Atlantic statement, particularly in reference to the real purpose for which we fight.

"As soon as you and Halifax have reached a meeting of minds on the Joint Declaration, I think we should have a prompt conference between yourself, Halifax, the Prime Minister, and me."

Later the President called a meeting of these four persons to be held at the White House at six o'clock that evening.

That afternoon I called Welles, Hackworth, and Carlton Savage to my office to consider the President's memorandum. We incorporated the President's suggestions in a new draft of the Joint Declaration. We further wrote in two additional statements, which were that:

(1) The signatories had determined that the effective prosecution of warfare against their enemies required the creation of a Supreme War Council;

(2) The Declaration might be adhered to by other nations which are or which may be rendering material assistance and contributions toward the defeat of the members of the Tripartite Pact.

The President's memorandum had made no direct comment on the proposed Supreme War Council. To meet his thought that there should not be two separate documents, we prepared a draft combining the Joint Declaration and the Supreme War Council proposal.

I now had ready three drafts to take to the White House—the new draft of the Joint Declaration, a copy of the December 19 draft on the Supreme War Council, and the amalgamated draft containing the Joint Declaration and the agreement on the Supreme War Council.

Lord Halifax joined in the later stages of the conference in my office. His principal comment was that the British Dominions probably would have to be given a status in the Supreme War Council similar to that given Britain. We explained to him that if the Council should comprise a large number of representatives it would become unwieldy and ineffective. We also pointed out that provision was made for *ad hoc* representation on the Council and its staff for Governments actively engaged against the common enemy in specific theaters of war.

Halifax and we agreed that the Soviet Government would be willing to subscribe to the principles contained in the Joint Declaration and to the formation of a Supreme War Council.

Halifax and I then went to the White House for our conference with the President and the Prime Minister. During the conference it was apparent that Mr. Roosevelt and Mr. Churchill were not yet in agreement that a Supreme War Council should be set up. Most of our discussion was devoted to this subject. We therefore agreed to adopt the new draft of the Joint Declaration, standing alone, leaving the Supreme War Council draft for further discussion.

Following the meeting the President called in Soviet Ambassador

Litvinov and handed him a copy to be sent immediately to his Government for comment.

Two days later Litvinov came to my office with three amendments suggested by his Government. Two were unimportant changes of wording. The third was that the phrase in the final paragraph "and contribution towards the defeat of members or adherents of the Tripartite Pact" should be changed to, "and contributions in the struggle for victory over Hitlerism."

I said to Litvinov that the Soviet amendments were unobjectionable with the possible exception of the one quoted, and that it would be almost impossible for us to omit Japan from the document should Hitler be mentioned. Litvinov agreed with me that we could work this out in some way that would be mutually satisfactory.

The Ambassador seemed surprised when I said that the proposed declaration had not been delivered to any other country for signature pending Soviet Russia's reaction. He had brought with him a separate declaration that Stalin planned to make upon the assumption that the Joint Declaration was already in circulation among other countries for signature. This declaration stated that the Government of the U.S.S.R. shared the general principles laid down in the Joint Declaration but was unable to sign it, not being at war with one of the states of the Tripartite Pact. "The Government of the U.S.S.R.," it said, "declares that it considers the chief enemy of freedom-loving peoples, and the center of the Axis, to be Hitlerite Germany, against which the Soviet Union is fighting and now bearing the brunt in the war against Hitlerite tyranny."

Litvinov and I agreed that it would be more effective for the Soviet Union to sign the Joint Declaration than to issue a separate Declaration.

I sent the Soviet amendments to the President later that day. I wrote in an accompanying memorandum: "The Soviet Ambassador tells me that the word 'Hitlerism' with his country includes Nazism, Fascism, and Japanism, and hence his Government may stick rather strongly for this word. I mention this so you will have the full background. I see no particular objection to the other proposals."

The President agreed to the incorporation of the Soviet amendments. I thereupon sent him a new draft which he returned on December 30 with a handwritten marginal note:

C. H.

O. K. It is approved now by Russia and W. S. C. [Churchill] but not yet by China. F. D. R.

Let's get it out on January 1. That means speed. F. D. R.

We transmitted the Joint Declaration immediately to the Governments listed in it. In accordance with the President's request, I asked the interested Governments to give an immediate response so that the document could be made public on January 1. I called in Chinese Ambassador Dr. Hu Shih and gave him personally a copy for his Government.

At the last moment Lord Halifax wanted to have a reference to "social security" inserted in the Declaration. Since the President and the Prime Minister, however, desired not to make any changes in the Declaration in view of the approval already given by the Soviet Government, Assistant Secretary Berle convinced Halifax that his Government should not press the suggestion.

Halifax had received a cable from the Foreign Office which agreed to the inclusion of India among the signatories but suggested the use of the words "high contracting parties" instead of "Governments signatory hereto" on the ground that much of India was composed of native states that could only be bound by the signature of the King. We replied that the words "high contracting parties" might raise difficulties on our side because of the moot question as to when a governmental agreement became a treaty. The words "high contracting parties" were customarily employed in treaties and, if this phrase were used, a demand might arise that the President submit the accord to the Senate as a treaty instead of dealing with it as an agreement based on his war-prosecution powers.

Halifax also wished to make a change at the end of the document to enable organizations such as the Free French to sign. I did not feel we could make any change without the President's approval—and from his memorandum of December 27 I already knew his sentiments on the particular point of the Free French signing the Declaration—hence nothing was done.

The following day, December 31, I sent the Joint Declaration in its final form to the President for signature by himself and the Prime Minister. I suggested that the President might desire to ask Ambassador Litvinov and T. V. Soong, who had just been made Foreign Minister of China, to attach their signatures at the White House.

By now the three points of agreement were combined into two, which read:

"(1) Each Government pledges itself to employ its full resources, military or economic, against those members of the Tripartite Pact and its adherents with which such Government is at war.

"(2) Each Government pledges itself to cooperate with the Governments signatory hereto and not to make a separate armistice or peace with the enemies."

Later I telephoned the President and suggested that since there would not be enough signatures on the document by the next day, January 1, it would be preferable to wait a few days before releasing it. The President and I agreed that the Joint Declaration should be dated January 1 and made public on January 2 or 3.

Over the telephone the President said, with respect to the memorandum on the creation of a Supreme War Council, that it seemed desirable to work on a regional basis for the time being, with the possibility that eventually it might be feasible to create an over-all Council. A Supreme War Council such as we at the State Department had suggested was not set up, but the President and the Prime Minister took a major step in that direction during Mr. Churchill's visit by creating the Combined Chiefs of Staff, with headquarters in Washington, to integrate the strategy of the two countries. They also established combined Anglo-American boards to deal with the assignment of munitions, the supply of raw materials, production and resources, shipping and food. Subsequently, unified commands were agreed upon for the Mediterranean, European, Southwest Pacific, and Southeast Asia theaters.

On the morning of December 31, while Prime Minister Churchill was having a bath in the White House, the President came to him and suggested that the Joint Declaration carry the title, "Declaration by United Nations." The distinguished bather agreed, and thus the term "United Nations" came into being. The President had our final draft recopied at the White House so as to bear the new title.

On the first day of the New Year, Roosevelt, Churchill, Litvinov, and Soong signed the historic document.

The following morning the President sent the Declaration to the State Department, where we placed it in the office of Assistant Secretary Berle for signature by the remaining twenty-two nations fighting the Axis. During the course of the day, representatives of those nations signed, some of them with obvious emotion. The Czech Minister, Vladimír Hurban, saying it was the most important document he had ever signed, was so nervous that he could not subscribe for some minutes after entering Berle's office. The Panamanian Minister got up from a sick bed to sign for his Government. The representative of India remarked that he was signing for 400,000,000 people.

While these signatures were being affixed, I issued a public statement, saying: "The Declaration by the United Nations joins together, in the greatest common war effort in history, the purpose and will of twenty-six free nations, representing the overwhelming majority of the inhabitants of all six continents. This is a living proof that law-abiding and peace-loving nations can unite in using the sword when necessary to preserve liberty and justice and the fundamental values of mankind. Against this host we can be sure that the forces of barbaric savagery and organized wickedness cannot and will not prevail."

For some days we had been discussing at the State Department and with the President the possibility of adherence to the United Nations Declaration by political groups representative of the peoples of countries overrun by the Axis which had no governments functioning in exile. The final paragraph of the Declaration had provided for the adherence of "other nations" that contributed to the struggle against the Axis, in addition to the original twenty-six signatories, but nothing was said of "free movements" and the like which purported to represent certain conquered peoples and even peoples of Axis countries.

At the State Department we had sought in December to clarify our position with regard to such movements by issuing a public statement on December 10. In this we pointed out that the people of the United States had a sympathetic interest in movements by aliens in this country who desired to liberate their countries from Axis domination, although at the same time we emphasized that we did not look with favor on any activities designed to divide the allegiance of any group of American residents between the United States and any foreign government, in existence or in prospect.

It was obvious that such "free movements" could not adhere to the United Nations Declaration as such, which was signed by representatives of governments. But it might be possible for them to state their adherence to the principles of the Declaration. The President favored some such clause with the thought that it would give the Free French movement an opportunity to adhere to the Declaration's principles. I concurred in this thought with regard to the Free French, but I stated my fears lest such a clause would produce a rush of conflicting adherences from a variety of other groups, committees, movements, and the like, many at loggerheads with each other, and that difficulties might arise with some of our Allies over such adherences.

On January 4, after informing Britain, Russia and China of our

purpose, we issued a statement, saying: "In order that liberty-loving peoples silenced by military forces may have an opportunity to support the principles of the Declaration by United Nations, the Government of the United States, as the depository for that Declaration, will receive statements of adherence to its principles from appropriate authorities which are not governments."

The Free French did not adhere under this offer because they wanted to come in as a government, but a flood of other adherences from committees allegedly representing the peoples of a dozen other countries poured in. Many of these committees were at odds with one another, ranging from royalists to communists, and many hoped to obtain a degree of recognition by the fact of adherence. Several of our Allies, Russia in particular, objected to some of these groups. As a result, we simply filed the requests for adherence, and the statement of January 4 brought little but trouble.

The United Nations Declaration on the whole proved to be an inspiring link binding together the nations fighting against the Axis movement of world conquest. By it these Allies bound themselves to the basic principles of sound international relations, to full cooperation among themselves, and to the continuance of the fight against the Axis until the achievement of victory. As new nations joined the fight they were proud of the honor of signing the statement of common aims and purposes. Coalitions have historically been impermanent and difficult, and sharp disputes did arise between several of the United Nations, as for example between the Soviet Union and Poland, but the United Nations Declaration proved a standard around which right-minded peoples and governments could rally and advance. It was a powerful factor in achieving the surprising degree of unity that was reached.

114: Toward Victory in the Orient

OUR DIPLOMATIC EFFORTS directed toward Europe during the last years of my period at the State Department were naturally of greater intensity than those directed toward Asia. There were more nations to deal with in Europe, whereas in the Orient, with Japan an enemy, there was only one major nation left, China. Nevertheless, a large part of the attention of my associates and myself centered on the Far East, as we attempted to solve problems of real magnitude.

Toward China we had two objectives. The first was an effective joint prosecution of the war. The second was the recognition and building up of China as a major power entitled to equal rank with the three big Western Allies, Russia, Britain, and the United States, during and after the war, both for the preparation of a postwar organization and for the establishment of stability and prosperity in the Orient.

In 1943 we had taken three major steps to demonstrate our recognition of China as a great power. I signed on January 11, 1943, the treaty relinquishing our extraterritorial rights in China. At the Moscow Conference I was successful in introducing China as one of the signatories of the Four-Nation Declaration which called for the creation of an international organization to maintain the peace. On December 17 Congress, at the suggestion of the Administration, passed an Act repealing the Chinese Exclusion Laws and permitting Chinese citizens to enter the United States as immigrants. This last had been one of my projects for a number of years, just as it had been in the case of the Japanese. Believing it unwise and unfair to exclude Chinese and Japanese as immigrants, I felt they could be placed under a quota system like citizens of other nations, and I considered repeal of the Exclusion Laws necessary as one means of improving our relations with the Orient. The quota for Chinese immigrants, worked out on the same proportional basis as that assigned to other countries, would be very small indeed, but the principle was important. Especially after Pearl Harbor it seemed anomalous to strive for complete cooperation with our Chinese Ally while barring her citizens from our shores. When the matter came before Congress, I repeatedly conferred with members of both Houses to urge their support of repeal. Following the enactment, the President on February 8, 1944, set a quota of 105 Chinese immigrants annually.

As our military pressure on Japan became ever stronger in 1943, the Japanese overlords sought to make a separate peace with China so as to free themselves for the major conflict in the Southwest Pacific. The Government of Chiang Kai-shek, however, although sorely tried by China's growing exhaustion after six years of unremitting resistance to the invader, repulsed all such attempts. I cabled the President in Cairo on November 29, 1943, that our Embassy at Chungking had informed us that Japan was continuing to make peace offers to the Chinese Government, but without success.

President Roosevelt and Chiang Kai-shek made great progress in friendship and cooperation at the Cairo Conference. There the President agreed that all territory taken from China by Japan should be returned, including Manchuria, Formosa, and the Pescadores Islands.

The President did not consult with me before this agreement; nor did he consult with me before agreeing with Chiang Kai-shek and Prime Minister Churchill on a statement that independence would be restored to Korea "in due course." I considered this statement unwise for several reasons. One was that the Koreans wanted their independence immediately Korea was liberated, and not in due course. They did not welcome the Cairo Declaration, and they feared that their country would be placed under the control of China. Another reason was that the Soviet Union should have been consulted first. Although Russia was not at war with Japan, she was our Ally in Europe, and she had an interest in Korea.

The United States supplied China with every possible military assistance considering the enormous difficulties of transportation and our immense commitments elsewhere. This help ranged from the establishment of an air force of American volunteers in China and an air transport service into China to the operation of a staff school for higher Chinese officers.

Nevertheless, we encountered a feeling from time to time on the part of the Chinese Government that we were not giving it sufficient representation in our Allied military councils. This was the burden of a conversation I had with Chinese Foreign Minister Dr. T. V. Soong when he called on me September 22, 1943, shortly before returning to Chungking. He said his Government had one matter most strongly in mind; namely, more recognition in connection with the work of the Combined Chiefs of Staff. Dr. Soong had already taken this up with the President directly.

I told Dr. Soong that the President was a great friend of China, as everyone knew, and that I was sure he desired to do the proper thing.

The United States did, in fact, make every effort to give China adequate representation in Allied military deliberations.

On the economic side, this Government took many steps—in addition to Lend-Lease, which was for direct military purposes—to assist China's economy, endangered by the long-continued strain of war. The assistance ranged from a credit of $500,000,000 and the facilitation of China's import and export trade, to technical advice in organizing a Chinese War Production Board under the direction of the President's representative, Donald M. Nelson.

We lost no opportunity to bolster China's own consciousness of her position as a major Power. In addition to her recognition at the Moscow Conference, to our relinquishment of extraterritorial rights, and to our admission of Chinese immigrants, China was encouraged to play a prominent part in the United Nations Relief and Rehabilitation Administration, in the Bretton Woods Monetary Conference, and finally in the Dumbarton Oaks Conference for the establishment of the United Nations organization.

At the same time, we took every opportunity we could to state to China that we felt justified in expressing our expectation that she would solve her internal problems and achieve political stability. The tense relations between the Chinese Communist organization in the north, and the Kuomintang Party in Chungking were of persistent concern to us. We decidedly wanted China to assume a position of influence alongside the three big Western powers, but we knew this was impossible if China were torn by internal strife.

Vice President Wallace went to China in 1944 with the idea of converting both parties to this point of view. This was his own idea, and when I became aware of it I sent Joseph W. Ballantine, one of the Department's Far Eastern experts, to try to dissuade him from it. It seemed to me that a special mission of this nature might harm instead of help the situation.

I never at any time favored excursions into foreign affairs by Wallace, especially through trips abroad such as he made to Latin America in 1943 and to China in 1944. A network of questions and conditions existed in our international affairs, especially during the war period, which necessarily had to be handled with extreme care and delicacy. I was convinced that no person outside the State Department and the White House could break into these affairs without serious risk of running amuck, so to speak, and causing hurtful complications. For this reason I always op-

posed suggestions that raw materials, as I called them, should be recruited from the outside to go abroad and undertake seriously to handle important phases of our foreign affairs.

But when Ballantine saw Wallace the latter had already got to the President and secured his permission. Ballantine had to present the points I had given him as pitfalls to be avoided rather than as arguments to dissuade him from the trip. So far as I could see, Wallace's trip was without beneficial effect.

When Lord Beaverbrook, British Minister of Production, came to see me on July 24, 1944, we discussed the Chinese situation, and I remarked that it sometimes worried us. "I myself believe," I said, "that China has only a fifty-fifty chance to reestablish herself as a great power. But if she's rebuffed now by the other major Allies even that chance might be lost, and the Chinese Government would tend to dissolve. In that case it's quite likely that the Soviets might have to assume responsibility for the whole situation—if they would."

There had been some thought, I said, in certain business circles here that the Pacific situation could be stabilized by agreement among London, Washington, and Tokyo, and some Britishers shared this view. But by now, I concluded, it was plain that Japan was out of it, and if China went out too there was no stabilizing means at all.

Beaverbrook agreed. He said there was, however, a feeling in Britain that the Government of Chiang Kai-shek was not a real fighting Government but was "something plastered on top of China like a button on a coat."

Chiang Kai-shek, in my opinion, had followed faithfully in the footsteps of Sun Yat-sen in attempting the task that many considered next to impossible, the creation of a real Republic out of the innumerable divisions and subdivisions composing the vast territory of China. He was wise and patriotic. He knew the Chinese people.

Nevertheless, we had great difficulty in our relations with China during my last years in office because of the loose procedure followed by Chiang Kai-shek in dealing most irregularly with our Government through the Treasury, War, and Navy Departments, and other agencies of the Government. He sent numerous cables direct to different officials of this Government, taking up political subjects that should have been handled through the State Department. His brothers-in-law, H. H. Kung and T. V. Soong, were in Washington dealing on political matters with offi-

cers, for example, of the Treasury, War, and Navy Departments. They were circumventing the State Department and our Ambassador in China. The President unfortunately permitted this condition to continue.

I felt rather strongly that if the State Department had been permitted to hold a stiff rein on the Chinese situation, and require the Chinese Government to deal directly with it alone, it might have induced that Government to rely far more on itself and to pursue a stable, resolute course instead of bumping along expecting aid of all sorts from other countries, particularly the United States.

I felt that American aid to China could not be effective by itself without the cooperation of the Chinese Government. That Government was dominated by the reactionary groups in the Kuomintang, which were devoted to their own selfish interests and were afflicted with much corruption and little efficiency. I felt we could have had more military cooperation. Chiang Kai-shek kept some of his best divisions near himself, traffic continued between the Chinese and Japanese zones, and the Government seemed more interested in the blockade against the Communists than against Japan.

Nevertheless, I never faltered in my belief that we should do everything in our power to assist China to become strong and stable. It was obvious to me that Japan would disappear as a great Oriental power for a long time to come. Therefore, the only major strictly Oriental power would be China. The United States, Britain, and Russia were also Pacific powers, but the greater interests of each were elsewhere. Consequently, if there was ever to be stability in the Far East, it had to be assured with China at the center of any arrangement that was made.

At this point I should say that, after my resignation, President Roosevelt gave me not the slightest hint of his plans for the Yalta Conference, at which he made decisions of great concern to China. The day before his departure for Yalta, the President came to the hospital to see me. He had hardly sat down when I began to state the thoughts I had in mind. I restated the most pertinent doctrines and policies we had been standing for, which more and more had become part of our postwar policies. These policies would have negated some later developments, such as a few decisions at Yalta. After talking with Mr. Roosevelt thirty-five minutes, I apologized for taking so much of his time. He said he was glad to hear my views; but he did not indicate what he would take up at Yalta, nor did he seek my views on such points.

Toward China's neighbor to the south, Thailand (Siam), our policy

after Pearl Harbor revolved around the fact that we refused to consider her as an enemy, regardless of the fact that the Thai Government had declared war against us on January 25, 1942. We did not declare war, but took the position that the Government at Bangkok, under the domination of the Japanese, did not represent the desires of its people; and we continued to recognize the Thai Minister in Washington as the Minister of his country.

Our desire being to see Thailand restored as an independent nation, we held discussions on this point with the British Government in 1944. The British, however, stated that they regarded Thailand as an enemy country which had to work its passage toward independence. Foreign Secretary Eden assured us that Britain desired the ultimate restoration of Thai sovereignty, but he made reservations with regard to security and economic collaboration by Thailand and to strategic guarantees in the Kra Isthmus which cuts across Thailand.

We on our part agreed that the new territories Thailand had acquired through Japanese "mediation," principally from French Indo-China, should be restored to their former owners, although this was to be without prejudice to eventual adjustments or transfers of territories by orderly, peaceful processes.

The President requested the Department on November 3, 1944, to instruct American representatives and to inform the British, French, and Dutch Governments, that the United States expected to be consulted on any arrangements as to the future of Southeast Asia. This included Thailand.

As I left office, our policy with regard to Thailand was to favor its restoration as a sovereign country, with an independent Government representing the free will of the people. We did not recognize the Government then existing. We were sympathetic to the "Free Thai Movement" which had been started here and in other countries, but we did not intend to make any political commitment to it, since we desired to leave the choice of government to the Thai people themselves.

With regard to Japan, the work of the State Department during my last years in office followed three main lines. The first was an unceasing effort to obtain humane treatment for prisoners of war and civilian internees in Japanese hands and to hasten the repatriation of these civilians. The second was a constant use of diplomacy to concert with our Allies all efforts toward prosecuting the war in the Orient to victory. The third was to prepare a plan for the postwar treatment of Japan.

Through the Swiss Government, which ably represented our interests toward Japan, we made literally scores of representations to Japan to induce her to accord proper treatment to Americans in her hands. Right after Pearl Harbor we took care to give the Japanese in our hands humane treatment, hoping that the Japanese Government might follow our example. Although Japan was not a signatory of the Geneva Prisoners of War Convention, we obtained from that Government a commitment to apply the provisions of the convention to American prisoners of war and, so far as adaptable, to civilian internees.

When, however, the first group of Americans repatriated from Japan, including Ambassador Grew, arrived on the first exchange voyage of the *Gripsholm,* they told stories of outrageous treatment by the Japanese. We made their accounts the basis of a vigorous, comprehensive protest to Japan.

As succeeding reports came in, it was obvious that Japan was flagrantly violating its commitment to carry out the provisions of the Geneva Convention. The hideous treatment of many American prisoners of war and civilian internees revealed a barbarism among the Japanese military which shocked the civilized world.

This mistreatment reached one of many climaxes when the Japanese executed the American aviators who fell into their hands after General James Doolittle's raid over Tokyo. We made this the subject of a vigorous protest on April 12, 1943. Calling again upon Japan to carry out its agreement to observe the Geneva Convention, we bluntly warned that the United States Government would punish all Japanese officers who participated in such atrocities.

I wish I could say that the many steps we took, and the valid support we received from the Swiss, had some effect. It did not seem that they had; Japanese barbarism was too deeply rooted; and our protests were still continuing when I left office. We were able, however, to build up a vast record of substantial evidence against individual Japanese which was of later aid in bringing these criminals to the punishment they amply deserved.

In 1943, and particularly in 1944, my associates and I devoted much time to the subject of the future treatment of Japan as a whole. We had frequent discussions among ourselves and with the War Department. In May, 1944, we in the State Department arrived at certain basic conclusions which we submitted to the War Department.

One was that Japan should be treated as a whole; it should not be

partitioned, although the territories it had wrested from other nations should be returned to them.

Another was that the Japanese Government as a unit should be suspended during the period of armed occupation. That is, its policy-making functions should cease. The Privy Council, the Cabinet, the Diet, the Board of Field Marshals and Fleet Admirals, and the Supreme Military Council should go. The Ministries of War, Navy, Munitions, and Greater East Asia Affairs should be liquidated; routine administrative functions of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs should be performed under the direction of Allied Civil Affairs officers, with policy matters referred to the State Department.

Administrative Departments, such as the Ministries of Home Affairs, Finance, Justice, Transportation and Communications, Agriculture and Commerce, Education and Welfare, could continue under Civil Affairs officers in the top policy-making positions. We also believed that the municipal and prefectural administrative machinery could be retained, at first under Civil Affairs supervision.

A third point in our thinking was that all the principally interested United Nations who had taken part in the war against Japan, should participate in the occupation and control of Japan. We felt it was undesirable to assume the sole onus for future Japanese resentment. We believed it more effective to show the Japanese people, through the presence of other nationalities in the forces of occupation and control, that the condemnation of Japanese aggression was world-wide. We wished to see the presence in Japan of the armed forces of other nations, even if only token forces, and we were particularly anxious to have forces of other Asiatic peoples in evidence, such as Chinese, Indians, and Filipinos, so as to impress the Japanese with the fact that this had been not merely a white man's war against them.

We divided our thinking with regard to Japan into three postwar periods. During the first, comparatively short, period, Japan should be deprived of her prewar colonial empire and be completely demilitarized.

During the second, and longer, period, we proposed the establishment of permanent bases from which Japan could be militarily policed so as to prevent a revival of Japanese aggression; the establishment of control systems to prevent Japanese rearmament and the development of a war potential; the encouragement of democratic thought, with the help of Japanese moderate elements; the elimination of ultranationalistic organizations; and Japan's gradual participation in world economy.

During the third period, of indefinite duration, we proposed the establishment of a Japanese Government that would carry out its proper functions in a peaceful manner.

The Emperor of Japan and his future naturally occupied a considerable portion of our thinking. Should the institution of the Emperor, hallowed in Japanese history, be continued, or should it be abolished? The opinion of the State Department on this point was requested at various times by the War and Navy Departments. It proved to be one of our most difficult questions to answer, because it was impossible at the time to prophesy accurately the effects of an attempt by the United Nations to eliminate the institution of the Emperor.

We summed up our conclusions, however, and gave our recommendations in a memorandum on May 9, 1944. In this we pointed out that, since the Japanese then showed an almost fanatical devotion to the Emperor, an attempt from the outside to abolish the institution of the Emperor would probably be ineffective. The mere dethronement of the Emperor would not abolish the Emperorship if the Japanese were determined to maintain it, and an indefinite military occupation of Japan might be necessary if the United Nations wished to prevent its revival. We called attention to the unique position of the Japanese Emperor in that he was considered as the source, sacred and inviolable, from which all authority emanated.

Accepted governmental procedure had allowed the Emperorship to be made an instrument of the Japanese military, we pointed out; and accordingly this close relationship would probably have to be severed if we were to wipe out militarism in Japan. In any event, the supreme authority in Japan must be the Allied military Government.

If the Emperor were retained, we said, there were three choices—redelegate to him none, all, or only some of his functions. We argued against the first in that it might create a difficult situation for the occupation authorities. Japanese functionaries considered the throne as the source of their authority, and they might refuse to serve under foreign masters if the Emperor were deprived of his rights of sovereignty. We questioned whether a sufficient number of Allied Civil Affairs personnel could ever be trained to operate by themselves the entire administration of Japanese government and the essential functions of Japanese economy.

We argued against the second on the grounds that it might infringe too much on the authority of the occupation forces, it might imply that

the latter were supporting the continuance of the throne, and it would probably encounter the opposition of American public opinion.

We felt that the third choice, to redelegate to the Emperor some of his functions, offered the best possibilities. The Allied governor would permit the Emperor to exercise only those functions that related to the assignment of administrative duties to subordinate officials. Without impairing the essential authority of the theater commander, this would tend to assure the good behavior of the Japanese people and to keep in office the maximum number of Japanese officials willing to serve directly under the supervision of Civil Affairs officers.

We did not think the Japanese would interpret this procedure as support of the Emperorship and its symbolic value, in view of the fact that foreign military forces would have apprehended the imperial family and would be using some of the Emperor's functions for their own ends. Moreover, the Japanese would be uncertain as to the eventual disposition of the Emperor.

It might well be possible, we thought, for the Civil Affairs administration to diminish even the limited use it might make of the institution of the Emperor as the administrative machinery of military government functioned more effectively. We considered this desirable politically. And, if a substantial movement developed among the Japanese people to abolish the imperial institution, the Allied military authorities should take no action against that movement, except to maintain law and order, and should cease to utilize the Emperor as a political instrument.

Generally, we recommended that the Allied military authorities adopt as flexible a course as possible. If they decided to permit the Emperor to exercise certain limited functions, we then made five recommendations.

The first was that the Emperor should be kept in seclusion, after being removed from the Imperial Palace and taken to a location which was comparatively easy to guard. But his personal advisers should have reasonable access to him, and he should be accorded normal courtesies. The Japanese people could therefore be assured of the Emperor's safety and welfare and of the fact that he was under surveillance.

The second was that the authority and responsibility of the theater commander should supersede that of all officials and organs in the occupied territory. The military governor would permit only those functions of the Emperor to be exercised which related to the assignment of administrative duties to subordinate officials. He should suspend those functions of the Emperor relating to the enactment of laws and to the armed forces. This

would show to the Japanese people that the authority of the occupation government was superior to that of the Emperor.

The third was that, if retaining the Emperorship did not facilitate the use of Japanese personnel under the supervision of Civil Affairs officers, it might become advantageous to suspend all the functions of the Emperor, but the occupation authorities would have to be prepared to take charge of the actual operation of all Japanese governmental activities. We requested that, before such action were taken, the State Department be given an opportunity to express its opinion.

The fourth was that, if a portion of Japan were occupied for any length of time prior to unconditional surrender of the entire country, the occupation authorities should be prepared to operate directly most of the functions of government in the occupied area. This for the reason that it would probably be difficult to obtain the services of any Japanese officials of significance in that area.

The fifth was that the occupation authorities, in all their treatment of and contact with the Emperor, should refrain from any action that would imply recognition of or support for the Japanese concept that the Emperor was different from and superior to other temporal rulers, that he was of divine origin and capacities, that he was sacrosanct, and that he was indispensable. They should permit absolute freedom of discussion of political as well as other subjects, except where there might be incitement to breaches of the peace.

In general, we felt we should not make advance commitments that would prejudice the situation in favor of the Emperor institution or against it. We did not want to come out against the institution lest this give the Japanese militarists live coals to blow upon and bring up a flame of last-man resistance. Nor did we wish to come out for the institution lest this discourage whatever popular movement there might be in Japan to erase it.

Just before Secretary of State Byrnes left for the Potsdam Conference in July, 1945, he telephoned me at my apartment and gave me the substance of a draft statement which he said President Truman had given him. This proposed statement, for issue by the United States, Britain, and Russia at the Potsdam Conference, contained a declaration by the Allies to Japan that the Emperor institution would be preserved if Japan would make peace. Byrnes asked my opinion. He said that high officials of the State, War, and Navy Departments had approved it.

I replied that, since he was leaving in a few minutes, there was no

time to write anything for him, but that the statement seemed too much like appeasement of Japan, especially after the resolute stand we had maintained on unconditional surrender. I pointed out that, as it was worded, it seemed to guarantee continuance not only of the Emperor but also of the feudal privileges of a ruling caste under the Emperor. I said that the Emperor and the ruling class must be stripped of all extraordinary privileges and placed on a level before the law with everybody else.

I then sent Byrnes a cable on July 16, through the courtesy of Under Secretary Grew, to outline my thoughts in further detail. I said that the support of the statement by the chief people in the State, War, and Navy Departments called for the most serious consideration. Nevertheless I pointed out that the central point calculated to create serious difference was in the paragraph relating to a proposed declaration by the Allies now—I underlined "now"—that the Emperor and his monarchy would be preserved in the event of an Allied victory. The proponents of this promise, I added, believed that somehow the influences and persons who paid allegiance to the Emperor and his religious status would fight and resist less hard and so save Allied lives and shorten the war.

The other side, however, I concluded, was that no person knew how the proposal would work out. The militarists would try hard to interfere. Also, should it fail, the Japanese would be encouraged and terrible political repercussions would follow in the United States. I therefore asked whether it would be well first to await the climax of Allied bombing and Russia's entry into the war.

The following day I received a message from Secretary Byrnes agreeing that the statement should be delayed, and that, when it was issued, it should not contain this commitment with regard to the Emperor.

When the Potsdam Declaration concerning Japan was issued, it contained no commitment with regard to the Emperor. The Japanese Government stated it would accept the Potsdam Declaration provided the right of the Emperor to rule were accepted. In line with the conclusions we had previously reached at the State Department, however, President Truman and Secretary Byrnes agreed to retain the Emperor only if his right to rule were subject to the Allied Command in carrying out the terms of surrender agreed to at Potsdam. The Japanese agreed.

The Potsdam agreement differed from the State Department recommendations made under me in that it permitted the continuance of the Japanese Government as such. We had recommended that certain sections of that Government be retained for administrative purposes; but at Pots-

dam it was agreed that the Government as a whole should continue along with its policy-making functions. Our recommendation that Allied Civil Affairs officers be stationed in all Government Departments likewise was not followed.

Concerning the vast area of the Southwest Pacific, my associates and I had been doing considerable thinking and, along with the President, had arrived at certain conclusions during my last years in office. This area embraced such important territories as the Dutch East Indies and the Philippines, and could be taken to include Malaya and French Indo-China.

These enormous lands entered into the intensive discussions we had been holding on the subject of dependent peoples. Without being specifically mentioned, they were included in the projects I had presented to the British and Russians under that heading.

We believed that the time had come when all parent countries should begin to plan and prepare for the self-government of these peoples, to be given them when they were ready for and worthy of it. Before us we always had the example of the Philippines, whom the United States had been preparing for independence almost since the day of our acquisition of the islands, and for whom an independence date had been formally set by national legislation in the Tydings-McDuffie Act of 1934.

The President was in thorough agreement with our proposals. He himself entertained strong views on independence for French Indo-China. That French dependency stuck in his mind as having been the springboard for the Japanese attack on the Philippines, Malaya, and the Dutch East Indies. He could not but remember the devious conduct of the Vichy Government in granting Japan the right to station troops there, without any consultation with us but with an effort to make the world believe we approved.

From time to time the President had stated forthrightly to me and to others his view that French Indo-China should be placed under international trusteeship shortly after the end of the war, with a view to its receiving full independence as soon as possible.

When British Foreign Secretary Eden came to the United States in March, 1943, he and I attended a conference with the President at the White House on March 27. William Strang (Assistant Under Secretary of State in the British Foreign Office), Harry Hopkins, Welles, British Ambassador Halifax, and Ambassador Winant, who was here on leave from London, were also present.

One of the first subjects brought up was whether China was to be

one of the four controlling powers after the war, and whether the British and ourselves were in agreement on this point. The consensus was Yes on both points.

Another question related to our postwar policies regarding Manchuria, Korea, Formosa, and Indo-China. The President suggested that a trusteeship be set up for Indo-China, that Manchuria and Formosa be returned to China, and that Korea might be placed under an international trusteeship, with China, the United States, and one or two other countries participating.

He said that the Japanese mandated islands should be internationalized for the purpose of keeping the peace. Eden indicated he was favorably impressed with this proposal.

The President went over this subject again in the conference my associates, Admiral Leahy, and I had with him at the White House on October 5, 1943, two days prior to my departure for the Moscow Conference. On that occasion he said the British might, as a gesture of generosity, return Hong Kong to China while China might, in return, immediately declare Hong Kong a free port under international trusteeship.

He added that Indo-China and the Japanese mandated islands in the Pacific might be placed under international trustees, along with security points in many parts of the world. He mentioned Truk, the Bonin Islands, the Kurile Islands (although he thought the Kuriles should really go to Russia), Rabaul or some point in the Solomons, appropriate points in the Dutch East Indies, Ascension Island in the South Atlantic, Dakar, and some point in Liberia.

Ambassador Halifax came to me on January 3, 1944, and remarked that information had come to him from the Foreign Office that the President, during his visit to the Near East for the Cairo and Tehran Conferences, had rather definitely stated to the Turks, Egyptians, and perhaps others his views to the effect that Indo-China should be taken away from the French and put under an international trusteeship. Halifax said he had heard the President make remarks like this during the past year or more, but it was important to know whether his utterances represented final conclusions, in view of the fact that they would soon get back to the French.

I replied that I knew no more about the matter than the Ambassador. I said I had heard the President make these remarks occasionally just about as he had heard them. I added that, in my judgment, the President

and Prime Minister Churchill would find it desirable to talk the question over fully, deliberately, and perhaps finally at some future stage.

I informed the President of this conversation in a note to him on January 14. I enclosed two brief memoranda citing the more important public statements or commitments we and the British had already made with regard to the future of French territory after the war. These were: the August 2, 1941, statement relative to the French-Japanese agreement; the President's letter to Pétain in December, 1941; a statement on New Caledonia made on March 2, 1942; a note to the French Ambassador on April 13, 1942; the President's statements and messages at the time of the invasion of North Africa; a letter from Robert D. Murphy to Giraud on November 2, 1942; and the Clark-Darlan agreement of November 22, 1942. Generally these looked toward the restoration of French territories after the war.

Ten days later the President sent me a memorandum, dated January 24, which began by saying: "I saw Halifax last week and told him quite frankly that it was perfectly true that I had, for over a year, expressed the opinion that Indo-China should not go back to France but that it should be administered by an international trusteeship. France has had the country—thirty million inhabitants—for nearly one hundred years, and the people are worse off than they were at the beginning."

He then went on: "As a matter of interest, I am wholeheartedly supported in this view by Generalissimo Chiang Kai-shek and by Marshal Stalin. I see no reason to play in with the British Foreign Office in this matter. The only reason they seem to oppose it is that they fear the effect it would have on their own possessions and those of the Dutch. They have never liked the idea of trusteeship because it is, in some instances, aimed at future independence. This is true in the case of Indo-China.

"Each case must, of course, stand on its own feet, but the case of Indo-China is perfectly clear. France has milked it for one hundred years. The people of Indo-China are entitled to something better than that."

In August, 1944, the British, in an *aide-mémoire,* raised with us the question of a French role in military operations in the Far East, with particular reference to Indo-China. They requested our concurrence in steps looking toward French participation in the liberation of Indo-China and in the war against Japan, for which the French had requested British approval. I sent this to the President on August 26, and commented, in a memorandum that, while these steps were "ostensibly military in char-

acter, they have wide implications and for this reason they are being referred to you for decision."

The President informed me orally that he planned to discuss these French proposals with Mr. Churchill at Quebec, where he was shortly going. He and the Prime Minister were unable, however, to reach any agreement. We subsequently received reports that the British were going ahead with the proposal to attach a French military mission to the Southeast Asia Command headquarters, though the mission, in the absence of American agreement, would at first be "ostensibly unofficial."

After learning that a French military mission had gone to Kandy to consult with the Southeast Asia Command regarding military operations affecting Indo-China, the President on November 3, 1944, gave instructions that American approval must not be given to any French military mission being accredited to the Southeast Asia Command, and that no American representatives in the Far East, whether civilian or military, were authorized to make any "decisions on political questions with the French mission or anyone else."

When we sent Mr. Roosevelt another memorandum on October 13 relative to an Office of Strategic Services proposal to assist resistance groups in Indo-China, he sent me a memorandum three days later, saying: "In regard to the Indo-China matter, it is my judgment on this date that we should do nothing in regard to resistance groups or in any other way in relation to Indo-China. You might bring it up to me a little later when things are a little clearer."

The President's opposition to the return of Indo-China to France continued at the time of my resignation the following month.

My own thought was that Indo-China should fall within the general category of dependent peoples, to whom the mother countries should be pledged to grant eventual independence. I favored this method rather than placing Indo-China under a trusteeship. Though the Vichy Government had betrayed Indo-China to Japan, I felt that an international agency would have great difficulty handling so large an area and population unless it were exceptionally well equipped. If France were prepared to restore her own popular institutions and to deal properly with the colonies, I favored the return of Indo-China, with France's pledge of eventual independence as soon as the colony became qualified for it, along the lines of our pledge to the Philippines. If France were not prepared to do full justice to Indo-China in accordance with this example, then it would be necessary to look to an international trusteeship; but I

did not underestimate the terrific undertaking that administration by a trusteeship would represent, both in service and in money.

Our prime difficulty generally with regard to Asiatic colonial possessions, of course, was to induce the colonial Powers—principally Britain, France, and The Netherlands—to adopt our ideas with regard to dependent peoples. Britain had refused to go along with us on the idea of eventual independence for her colonies, believing instead that they should in time achieve self-government within the Empire. We had frequent conversations with these parent countries, but we could not press them too far with regard to the Southwest Pacific in view of the fact that we were seeking the closest possible cooperation with them in Europe. We could not alienate them in the Orient and expect to work with them in Europe.

At no time did we press Britain, France, or The Netherlands for an immediate grant of self-government to their colonies. Our thought was that it would come after an adequate period of years, short or long depending on the state of development of respective colonial peoples, during which these peoples would be trained to govern themselves. Our cause was harmed, not helped, by some vociferous persons in the United States, including Vice President Wallace, who argued for an immediate grant of independence or for the total separation of colonies from their mother countries.

These persons disregarded the magnitude of the problem that would thereupon face all nations. When a certain Texan argued with me along the line of separating all colonies from their mother countries and particularly urged that Britain should return Hong Kong to China, I retorted that Hong Kong had been British longer than Texas had belonged to the United States, and I did not think anyone would welcome a move to turn Texas back to Mexico.

We also encountered resistance from our own War and Navy Departments, which felt that our ideas conflicted with their desire to acquire sovereignty of Japanese islands in the Pacific for use as United States bases. We were accordingly not able to bring before the Dumbarton Oaks Conference our dependent peoples project, embraced within a plan for a trusteeship system to be set up under the United Nations organization. To me this was a keen disappointment.

As Allied, principally American, forces began the reconquest of the Southwest Pacific islands, we summed up our thinking with regard to the Netherlands Indies in a letter of February 28, 1944, to the Director of the Civil Affairs Division of the War Department. We began this by

saying that arrangements for the civil administration of liberated Netherlands Indies territory should be predicated on the assumption that the exercise of all attributes of sovereignty would be resumed by the Netherlands Government as soon as the situation, in the judgment of the Supreme Commander of the Allied Expeditionary Force (General Douglas MacArthur) permitted. We then said:

"However, in any military agreement of the nature under consideration no commitments should be made which would prejudice the right of the Government of the United States to bring up either prior to or after the resumption of sovereign rights by the Netherlands Government certain proposals for discussion and agreement of a general character which it may believe to be of rightful concern to the United States Government and to all Governments which have subscribed to the principles of the Atlantic Charter, and to the Four-Nation Declaration at Moscow, and certain particular proposals which may be of special mutual concern to the people of the Netherlands Empire and the people of the United States."

In brief, we did not want agreements made between our military commander and Netherlands authorities which would militate against our presentation of proposals relating to the eventual independence of the Netherlands Indies.

We summarized our thoughts on colonial areas in Southeast Asia generally in a Department memorandum which I sent to the President on September 8, 1944. In this we suggested the value of "early, dramatic, and concerted announcements by the nations concerned making definite commitments as to the future of the regions of Southeast Asia." We added:

"It would be especially helpful if such concerted announcements could include (1) specific dates when independence or complete (dominion) self-government will be accorded, (2) specific steps to be taken to develop native capacity for self-rule, and (3) a pledge of economic autonomy and equality of economic treatment toward other nations.

"Such announcements might well be accompanied by . . . a pledge to establish a regional commission. . . . The value of such concerted announcements would be still further enhanced if each of the colonial powers concerned would pledge a formal declaration of trusteeship under an international organization for the period of tutelage; but it might be unwise for the United States to attempt to insist upon such a declaration of trusteeship by one country if similar declarations could not be secured from the others. In addition to their great value as psychological warfare,

such announcements would appear to be directly in line with American postwar interests."

The President warmly approved these ideas. He subsequently directed that instructions be sent to American officers at home and abroad, and that the British, Dutch, and French Governments be informed as well, that the United States expected to be consulted on any arrangements as to the future of Southeast Asia.

Such was our policy toward the Southwest Pacific as I left office. It might be thought that we were presumptuous in seeking to present our ideas to the British, French, and Dutch Governments as to what they should do with their own Pacific possessions. We had, however, two rights to take such action. One was the fact that the liberation of those possessions would not have been achieved—and possibly never could have been—except by United States forces. The other was our interest in seeing that peace in the Pacific, restored by our forces, should continue. And we could not help believing that the indefinite continuance of the British, Dutch, and French possessions in the Orient in a state of dependence provided a number of foci for future trouble and perhaps war. Permanent peace could not be assured unless these possessions were started on the road to independence, after the example of the Philippines. We believed that we were taking the long-range view, and that a lasting peace in the Pacific was of greater ultimate benefit to Britain, France, and The Netherlands—as well as to the whole world—than the possible immediate benefits of holding on to colonies.